教育学部　　前期日程

令和７年度入学試験問題

外国語（英語）

注　意　事　項

１．この試験問題は試験開始の合図があるまで開かないこと。

２．受験番号を解答用紙の指定したところに正しく記入すること。

３．問題用紙と解答用紙とは別になっている。解答は解答用紙の指定されたところに記入すること。それ以外の場所に記入した解答は，採点の対象とならない。

４．ページの落丁・乱丁及び問題用紙と解答用紙の汚れ等に気付いた場合は，監督者に申し出ること。

５．問題用紙の余白等は適宜利用してよいが，破いたり切り離したりしないこと。

６．試験終了時，解答用紙は白紙も含めて全て提出すること。

７．この問題用紙と下書用紙は持ち帰ること。

前期日程
外国語（英語）
問題用紙５枚中　１枚目

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Ⅰ．次の英文はポライトネスについて書かれたものである。英文を読んで，設問に答えなさい。

A talented violinist finishes her performance with a great flourish, and the audience responds with loud applause. The soloist (rather than punching an imaginary victim or waving her arms happily in the air) has a meek smile on her face, and lowers her body repeatedly while the people in the audience continue to clap their hands enthusiastically. After several bows (rather than curtsies, these days), the soloist is embraced by the conductor and the leader of the orchestra and leaves the platform, but the applause continues, reaching a new level (ア) she walks on again, smiling, and starts the same routine again.

This strange ritual continues—with more entrances and retreats by the soloist—until the soloist decides to play an encore, or else the audience decides that it has done enough honor to the performer and lapses into silence. (1)

The ritual is familiar, but it takes a minute or two to consider why it takes place. It can be explained (イ) a manifestation of politeness, or what I like to call "communicative altruism." Politeness, in this broad sense, is a form of communicative behavior found (X) in human languages and among human cultures; indeed, it has been claimed as a universal phenomenon of human society. What it means to be polite, I will argue, is to speak or behave in such a way as to (appear to) give benefit or value not to yourself but to the other person(s), especially the person(s) you are conversing with. This concept in Chinese society goes back more than two thousand years—dating at least from the book *Lǐ Jì**, reputedly by Dai Sheng, which begins, "Speaking of *lǐ*, [i.e., politeness], humble yourself and show respect to other." In the example we are considering, although there is no speech, there is communication: bowing and clapping are instances of gestural communication, and the message is clear. (2)

The audience says (by clapping) "We think you're great." The soloist (by bowing, again and again) lowers herself, and says in effect, "I am not so great as all that—I'm humbling myself as I meekly accept your applause."

But just by watching, we cannot be sure how genuine the audience's appreciation is. Perhaps they are clapping "just out of politeness." And inside, the soloist may feel triumphant and full of self-congratulation—though she tries not to show it. Inside, some members of the audience may have a poor opinion of the violinist's performance—but they clap just the same, as it would be embarrassing not to. Inner feelings are not the concern in this present study of politeness: it is concerned, rather, with politeness as an observable behavioral phenomenon. Hence when I say politeness is "communicative altruism," this should not be misunderstood: the "altruistic meaning" conveyed via communication should not be equated with genuine altruism, where someone does or says something unselfishly, for the sake of some other person(s)—to extend a helping hand to them. Often communicative altruism and genuine altruism do coincide, but it is not difficult to imagine or recall cases where they do not. Think of a case where the speaker (= A) politely praises the violin playing of the other person (= B), not because A wants to do something nice for B, but because A wants to flatter B with the selfish motive of hoping to get a better job. In principle and sometimes in practice,

politeness is distinct from "true" altruism, just as making a statement about the world is distinct from telling the truth. (　3　)

But before we leave this initial scenario of the violinist, it will be useful for demonstrating some further aspects of the politeness phenomenon.

A first point—a fairly obvious one—is that politeness is *not obligatory*. People can be nonpolite: they normally will not behave politely unless there is a reason to be polite (even if the reason is somewhat vague, such as following convention). They can also be impolite: for example, a member of the concert audience could have booed, hissed, or sat in stony silence when the time for applause arrived. In the case of concert performances, this seems to be rare in English-speaking societies, even when the performance is poor—but it cannot be ruled out. Politeness is generally thought to be a good thing, and socialization of children includes learning to be polite. (　4　)

A second point about politeness is that there are varying *gradations* of polite and impolite behavior. This can be illustrated in a highly conventionalized form in our example of the violin performance. A bow is a gesture of lowering oneself physically, and hence socially—and the deeper the bow, the more self-lowering and polite it is deemed to be. The clapping and cheering, (　Y　), is a response signaling appreciation or high evaluation of someone's performance—and the louder and the more prolonged the clapping is, the greater the appreciation signaled and the more polite the response.

Third, notice, further, that there is often a *sense of what is normal*, recognized by members of society, as to how polite to be for a particular occasion. If, after a thrilling and dexterous piece of playing, the violinist received only two perfunctory* rounds of applause, lapsing into silence as soon as she left the platform, this would be felt to be less polite than normal. In fact, English has an idiom to capture underpolite compliments: "damning with faint praise." (　Z　), if the audience continued its rapturous applause for ten minutes, repeatedly cheering on the soloist's return to view, this would be considered exceptional if not excessive—a case of overpoliteness. (　5　)

（出典：Leech, G. (2014). *The pragmatics of politeness.* Oxford University Press. pp. 3–5, 一部改変）
**Lǐ Jì*: 『礼記』（中国、前漢時代の経書）　*perfunctory: 形だけの

問１　（ア）と（イ）には同じ単語が入ります。その単語を書きなさい。

問２　(X) に入る最も適切な語を１つ選び，数字で答えなさい。

1　generally
2　occasionally
3　rarely
4　scarcely

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問３　次の文を入れるのに，最も適切な位置を本文中の(1)～(5)から１つ選び，数字で答えなさい。

However, there are occasions where rudeness or impoliteness is felt to be desirable—where the recipient of impolite behavior “had it coming* to them.”

*had it coming: 当然の報いを受ける

問４　（　Y　）と（　Z　）には同じ語句が入ります。最も適切な語句を１つ選び，数字で答えなさい。ただし，文頭に入る語句も小文字で始まっています。

1　for example
2　however
3　on the other hand
4　similarly

問５　次の英文の内容が，本文の内容と合致している場合には○を，合致していない場合には×をつけなさい。

(1) According to the author’s opinion, acting to give benefit to the other person, rather than yourself means you are polite.
(2) From the viewpoint of politeness, people’s behaviors always represent their inner feelings.
(3) Communicative altruism and genuine altruism cannot be present at the same time.
(4) The more a person lowers his/her body, the greater the degree of politeness appears to be.
(5) The degree of politeness is often determined by the sense of what is normal, shared by the members of society.

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II. 次の英文は，学習におけるゲームの役割について書かれたものである。英文を読んで，英語で設問に答えなさい。なお，解答は解答欄に収まるように書きなさい。

Some researchers define a game as "a system in which players engage in an artificial conflict, defined by rules, that results in a quantifiable outcome." To extend the definition, games for learning may be defined as games with specific learning goals.

Games for learning are unique in that (ア) the goal of facilitating learning creates a tension in the design process that requires careful balancing of the need to cover the subject matter and the desire to promote gameplay. If the focus is too much on achieving the learning objectives, the resulting environment may not actually feel like a game, since important elements of a game, such as playfulness and player choice, may be lost. In contrast, if the focus is too much on gameplay, then features supporting playfulness may get in the way of learning. The design process therefore has to carefully plan how much each of these two design objectives—learning outcomes versus playfulness—should influence specific design decisions.

Table 1 contrasts game-based learning with two other approaches—gamification and playful learning. *Gamification* involves the addition of specific game features, mainly involving the reward system and storylines, to an existing (nongame) learning environment in order to make it more motivating. Gamification involves adding incentives such as stars, points, achievements, or rankings to encourage the learner to expend effort on an otherwise unengaging or boring task. The learning task itself, however, remains largely unchanged. Airline reward programs, which have existed for several decades, are an early example of gamification. Rather than redesigning the flight experience itself, these programs use points and elite status to gamify flying and attract customers to their airline. In the context of learning, this is usually considered a missed opportunity to rethink and redesign the learning task. In some cases, however, gamification may be successful in facilitating learning.

Table 1
Game-based learning, gamification, and playful learning

	Learning activity	Game features	Example
Gamification	Largely unchanged	Mostly use of extrinsic rewards	Gamified worksheets
Playful learning	Redesigned to be more relevant, meaningful, and interesting	Mostly use of intrinsic rewards	Simulation with playful feedback
Game-based learning	Redesigned to be more relevant, meaningful, and interesting	Use of full range of game features	Learning game

In contrast to gamification, *game-based learning* means a learning task is redesigned in order to make it more interesting, meaningful, and, ultimately, more effective for learning than either a nongame or gamified task. In other words, we use the unique characteristics of games to create effective learning activities. This redesign is based on insights from education, pedagogy, and the

learning sciences, as well as from discipline-specific theory and research. The result is a new pedagogy and a new way of learning that, if successful, would not just be considered a good learning task but also a good game.

Playful learning takes a different approach, as it is based on the idea that a full game is not always needed when a learning task is redesigned to make it more effective in terms of relevance, meaning, and interest. Taking a playful learning approach means that a learning activity may be redesigned, but game features are used only in subtle ways to create a playful experience but not a complete game. For example, only feedback in a game mechanic may become playful, using animations to provide a feeling of responsiveness. To some extent, this approach is (イ) the opposite of gamification—rather than adding game features without changing the learning approach, the learning approach is changed to include some game features in the instructional task.

（出典：Plass, J. L., Homer, B. D., Mayer, R. E., & Kinzer, C. K. (2020). Theoretical foundations of game-based and playful learning. In J. L. Plass, R. E. Mayer, & B. D. Homer (Eds.), *Handbook of game-based learning* (pp. 3–24). The MIT Press. pp.3–5,一部改変）

問１　以下の(1)と(2)の設問に英語で答えなさい。

(1) Explain, in your own words, what the authors mean by (ア) "the goal of facilitating learning creates a tension in the design process that requires careful balancing of the need to cover the subject matter and the desire to promote gameplay."

(2) The authors state that the approach of playful learning is (イ) "the opposite of gamification." Explain this clearly by providing your own examples.

問２　以下の(1)と(2)の設問に英語で答えなさい。

(1) Choose one of the three learning approaches (gamification, playful learning, or game-based learning) that you have experienced. Describe your experience and explain, on the basis of the passage, why you think it should be classified as that type of approach.

(2) Do you agree with the opinion that using games can enhance learning? Include reasons why you think it is or is not effective.